

Towards ecosystem-based techniques for tipping point detection

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ABSTRACT

An ecosystem shifts to an alternative stable state when a threshold of accumulated pressure (i.e. direct impact of environmental change or human activities) is exceeded. Detecting this threshold in empirical data remains a challenge because ecosystems are governed by complex interlinkages and feedback loops between their components and pressures. In addition, multiple feedback mechanisms exist that can make an ecosystem resilient to state shifts. Therefore, unless a broad ecological perspective is used to detect state shifts, it remains questionable to what extent current detection methods really capture ecosystem state shifts and whether inferences made from smaller scale analyses can be implemented into ecosystem management. We reviewed the techniques currently used for retrospective detection of state shifts detection from empirical data. We show that most techniques are not suitable for taking a broad ecosystem perspective because approximately 85% do not combine intervariable non-linear relationships and high-dimensional data from multiple ecosystem variables, but rather tend to focus on one subsystem of the ecosystem. Thus, our perception of state shifts may be limited by methods that are often used on smaller data sets, unrepresentative of whole

ecosystems. By reviewing the characteristics, advantages, and limitations of the current techniques, we identify methods that provide the potential to incorporate a broad ecosystem-based approach. We therefore provide perspectives into developing techniques better suited for detecting ecosystem state shifts that incorporate intervariable interactions and high-dimensionality data.

Key words: threshold, regime shift, ecosystem state, bifurcation, non-linear, ecosystem resilience, dimensionality, alternative stable state.

CONTENTS

I. Introduction

II. Techniques for detecting state shifts

III. Methods based on few variables and low dimensionality

- (1) Segmented or changepoint regression

- (2) Curve-based methods

- (3) Multivariate analysis-based method

IV. Methods that incorporate both multiple predictors and multiple response variables

- (1) Importance of variable selection

- (2) Machine learning methods

- (3) Combined multivariate method

- (4) Dose–response-based method

V. Future perspectives

VI. Conclusions

VII. Acknowledgements

VIII. References

IX. Supporting information

I. INTRODUCTION

An ecosystem tipping point involves a threshold beyond which an ecosystem transitions from one stable state to another. The change in stable state is generally expected to follow a non-linear bifurcation driven by accumulation of pressure on the ecosystem over time. This accumulation of pressure gradually erodes resilience until a small additional increase in pressure is sufficient to cause a large shift in ecosystem state (Scheffer *et al.*, 2001; Folke *et al.*, 2004). Once an ecosystem has shifted to a different state, recovery to the previous reference state tends to be very complex and lengthy (Moreno-Mateos *et al.*, 2020; Hemraj *et al.*, 2022).

Our understanding of tipping points (Table 1) and ecological state shifts is primarily rooted in non-linear mathematical models that exhibit such behaviour in response to changes in a single driver. However, natural biological systems are subjected to multi-layered stressors that interlink in different ways (e.g. synergistic, antagonistic, or additive) and drive different patterns of ecosystem-level response (Harley *et al.*, 2017). As opposed to a single pressure, detecting the responses of multiple ecosystem components under various combinations of interlinking pressures remains particularly difficult because of the complexity of interactions between response variables and pressures that can cause, or even prevent, a shift in stable state (e.g. linear and non-linear relationships, cumulative effects, or feedback loops; Fig. 1). Multiple perspectives showcase the potential intricacy of interlinkages in ecosystems that need to be accounted for when inferring state shifts (e.g. Pilosof *et al.*, 2017; Kefi *et al.*, 2022), but appropriate statistical techniques to detect the presence and causes of these shifts remain limited.

In the Anthropocene, cumulative pressures are being exerted on marine and terrestrial ecosystems (Halpern *et al.*, 2008; Watson & Venter, 2019; O'Bryan *et al.*, 2020). The overlap and interlinkages among these pressures influence the response of the ecosystem, including significant feedback responses (Fig. 1). For example, the feedback loops within a smaller subsystem in an ecosystem may be shifted by multiple pressures. This shift in one subsystem, in turn, can drive a cascading impact on other subsystems within that ecosystem (Fig. 1). Such interconnections between different subsystems that respond to multiple stressors drive changes in ecosystem resilience and can cause an accelerated or delayed shift in ecosystem stable state (Fig. 2). Therefore, based on the pressures and response variables being investigated, it may be difficult to detect exact ecosystem tipping points from empirical data, especially if data are inconsistent (Carstensen, Telford & Birks, 2013). Recent challenges to the concept that thresholds leading to tipping points can be identified from empirical data instead suggest that there are more gradual shifts in response magnitude and variance in relation to increasing pressure, and that bi-modality or multi-modality, even if they exist, are too difficult to identify because of the noisiness of ecological data (Hillebrand *et al.*, 2020, 2023). However, most studies tend to be based primarily on a few environmental drivers and ecosystem components (i.e. a subsystem of the whole ecosystem, see Fig. 1), thus raising the question of which ecological dimensions (e.g. ecosystem type, species composition, keystone species or functional groups) exhibit threshold responses and to what extent detecting tipping points from one pressure at a time is reliable (Dudney & Suding, 2020).

There remains the problem that different combinations of pressures can drive or prevent shifts in the ecosystem. For example, a synergistic interaction between increased nutrient and CO₂ concentrations accelerated the expansion of filamentous turfs at the expense of calcifying algae in an Australian rocky reef while nutrients or CO₂ alone did not have such a drastic effect (Russell *et al.*, 2009). On the other hand, the antagonistic effects of multiple

stressors may cause a delay in tipping point. In a mesocosm experiment, the introduction of zebra mussels, an invasive species, delayed a shift in state due to increased nutrient input by controlling algal biomass (Dzialowski & Jessie, 2009). These examples show that detecting tipping points in ecosystems from multiple stressors remains complex as it requires some level of incorporation of the interlinkages between the stressors in a multivariate manner (Fig. 1), a consideration that few methods currently incorporate. The other problem is that bifurcation at tipping points may occur in different ways (e.g. fold bifurcation, pitchfork bifurcation, Hopf bifurcation, or transcritical bifurcation), i.e. the shift of an ecosystem from one stable state to another can follow different pathways, including more gradual shifts rather than sharp sudden shifts (Randsalu-Wendrup *et al.*, 2016). In addition, an ecosystem state shift may be delayed in relation to the peaking of combined environmental stressors (Fig. 2; Hillebrand *et al.*, 2023), or the ecosystem may evade tipping altogether (Rietkerk *et al.*, 2021).

From an ecological perspective, these different pathways and lags can be driven by variation in responses, such as through different levels of community interaction (Connell & Ghedini, 2015), species-specific responses (Folke *et al.*, 2004), the resilience of the ecosystem (Dakos *et al.*, 2019), functional redundancy within the ecosystem (Céréghino *et al.*, 2022), changes in the system's feedback loops that regulate dynamics (Biggs, Peterson & Rocha, 2018), evolutionary tipping points (Botero *et al.*, 2015), or lags driven by extinction debt (Tilman *et al.*, 1994). Additionally, spatial fluxes between systems, such as metapopulation and metacommunity interactions, biogeographical range shifts, and spatial distribution of specific cumulative pressures can drive feedback mechanisms that either push ecosystems towards tipping points or help them evade them (see Conversi *et al.*, 2015; Fisher *et al.*, 2015; Schneider & Kéfi, 2016; Rietkerk *et al.*, 2021; Kéfi *et al.*, 2022). Altogether, these ecological mechanisms render the response of ecosystems complex, meaning that using only a

subsystem within the ecosystem to identify tipping points is likely to lead to inaccurate and unreliable outcomes, which altogether will not provide good guidance for ecosystem management.

Currently, there are two primary research pathways towards identifying tipping points. One involves using early warning signals (EWS) to forecast how far an ecosystem is from a tipping point: i.e. a ‘predictive’ approach. Ecosystems reach a tipping point when increasing pressures drive a reduction in resilience and stability to a point where a small additional increase in pressure will cause a shift in ecosystem state. As resilience and stability decrease, the recovery time to the original equilibrium increases, that is a ‘critical slowing down’ occurs (Van Nes & Scheffer, 2004; Dakos *et al.*, 2012). Simultaneously, the closer the ecosystem is to its tipping point, the greater is its tendency to show early warning signals (EWS) including higher variance, autocorrelation, and skewness in response (Scheffer *et al.*, 2009; Lenton, 2011). Consequently, predicting potential tipping points provides a key tool for prevention of ecosystem state shifts. While increasing variance, autocorrelation and skewness have formed the basis of forecasting tipping points, recent advancements in statistical and computer science have provided new approaches to forecasting tipping points, including from multivariate datasets (e.g. Dakos *et al.*, 2012; Grziwotz *et al.*, 2023; O’Brien *et al.*, 2023). As an alternative to the ‘predictive’ approach, the ‘detection’ approach involves uncovering past shifts in ecosystem state from empirical data and using that information to restore or manage ecosystems. Using retrospective detection of ecosystem-specific variables that cause state shifts, or are susceptible to change, is extremely useful for setting restoration targets and protecting ecosystems against reoccurrence of state shifts.

The focus of the current work is on moving towards an ecosystem-based technique for the ‘detection’ approach, primarily on a temporal scale. While prediction techniques and spatial-scale feedback are also important aspects to be considered, incorporating these here will

create an overly exhaustive review. Some of the key methods for prediction have been described previously by O'Brien *et al.* (2023). Current advances in detecting major shifts in ecosystem state from empirical data highlight that a broader ecosystem approach is essential (Dakos *et al.*, 2019; Dudney & Suding, 2020; Kéfi *et al.*, 2022; Hillebrand *et al.*, 2023). There are numerous techniques available for detecting tipping points from univariate or multivariate ecological data. Importantly, however, few of these methods are suitable for detecting tipping points in ecosystems by evaluating the combination of non-linear interactions between multiple response and pressure variables. Considering the challenges presented by interlinkages between ecosystem variables, and the ever-growing intricacy caused by inclusion of more response and pressure variables (e.g. increasing dimensionality increases difficulty of data processing and can decrease predictive power), it is difficult to devise an ideal method that comprehensively and accurately identifies tipping points from ecological data. Nonetheless, here, we review the literature to identify the major techniques applied for detecting non-linear shifts in ecosystem state, including univariate and multivariate methods, and how they fail properly to assess shifts driven by combined stressor effects on combined response variables. We also put forward some techniques that come closer to the inclusion of multiple variables for identifying changes in ecosystem state that may or may not lead to drastic state shifts. We aim to delve into the advantages and limitations of such techniques and discuss the future perspective of what would constitute a broad ecosystem-based approach to detect the presence or absence of a shift in ecosystem state.

II. TECHNIQUES FOR DETECTING STATE SHIFTS

Several techniques currently exist for detecting non-linear shifts in empirical data that represent thresholds. We performed a systematic search of peer-reviewed papers that identify

tipping points following the PRISMA guidelines (which aim to standardise and increase reporting quality for systematic reviews and meta-analyses by using structured, transparent, and reproducible methods to collate and summarise evidence; O’Dea *et al.*, 2021). We explicitly sought studies reporting non-linear interactions that caused shifts in ecological data by using the search terms “(nonlinear OR non-linear) AND (response OR impact OR stressor OR pressure) AND (ecosystem OR ecological) AND (threshold OR tipping point)” on the *Web of Science* published between 1st January 1990 and 15th April 2023 (see online Supporting Information, Table S1 and Appendix S1). Our search resulted in 658 papers. We then used the following criteria to target papers that were based only on original research using methods to identify tipping points: (1) the study attempted to identify a shift in their data that would signify a tipping point, and (2) the study used or tested one or more techniques that are suitable to identify a non-linear shift in the data. We identified 507 peer-reviewed papers that met our criteria (Table S1). Study identification and screening were performed manually and without the assistance of software. Among these papers, 36% sought to determine the effect of one predictor on two or more response variables (Fig. 3A), 11% determined the response of one variable in relation to one predictor (Fig. 3B), 30% combined multiple response variables and multiple predictors (Fig. 3C), and 6% used two or more predictors to identify shifts in one response variable (Fig. 3D). The remaining 17% involved syntheses (including reviews, perspectives, or meta-analyses) on specific habitats, methods, or environmental management involving tipping points. Among the most applied techniques were segmented type regressions (ST in Fig. 3), curve derivative-based models (NL) (e.g. Gaussian model, General additive model, continuous interaction models, threshold non-additive formulation), multivariate analysis-based methods [MV, e.g. principal components analysis (PCA)], machine learning (ML), e.g. ‘significant zero crossings’ (SiZer), regression tree-based methods and other clustering type analysis, network analysis (NB), or

logistic/sigmoid (LS) models. These methods were used in 55% of all studies, however, the usage of each method within each category differed (Fig. 3). Curvilinear model-based analysis (NL in Fig. 3) was the method used most often in all categories. Overall, about 55% of studies were from terrestrial ecosystems, 17% from freshwater ecosystems, and 28% from marine ecosystems. In marine and terrestrial studies, most detections of thresholds were performed using curvilinear model fitting (NL in Fig. 3) or segmented-type (ST in Fig. 3) regressions. In freshwater studies the major methods used were curvilinear model fitting (NL) and PCA-based (MV) methods. Machine learning-based (ML) methods were generally more common in terrestrial and freshwater studies than marine studies.

While many of the methods above are focused on detecting non-linear shifts in data (either they are fully non-linear or they utilise some type of sequential analysis to identify non-linear breakpoints), they tend to be more applicable for low-dimensionality data where fewer variables can be managed more easily. To utilise data of high dimensionality better, techniques such as combined multivariate analysis (Vasilakopoulos & Marshall, 2015), threshold indicator taxa analysis (TITAN; Baker & King, 2010), or gradient forest (Ellis, Smith & Pitcher, 2012) have been developed. However, a common drawback of these methods remains their inability to integrate the synergistic, antagonistic, or additive interactions between variables (whether ecosystem components or stressors). Thus, even if multiple variables are used to infer shifts in stable state (e.g. community shifts), variables often are either analysed in a pairwise manner (i.e. different combinations of one predictor against one response variable) or using linear multivariate techniques that reduce dimensionality (e.g. PCA-based techniques: MV in Fig. 3). That said, some machine learning techniques (e.g. regression tree-based) and network techniques do enable analysis of the interactive effects of multiple predictor or response variables.

Although most methods and studies reduce dimensionality before inferring changes in stable state (Fig. 3; green arrows), some studies seek to integrate interactive effects between variables. For example, 30% of studies that used two or more predictors to determine the effect on one response variable sought to integrate interactive predictor effects. Similarly, 8% of studies looking at the effect of one predictor on multiple response variables and 21% of studies looking at the effect of multiple predictors on multiple response variables assessed interactive predictor effects. These studies tried to incorporate intervariable interactions to infer a better understanding of how variables interlink to cause a shift in the stable state of ecosystems. Nonetheless, the number of studies that integrated interactive effects remains low and in multiple instances the exact non-linear relationship between two or more response or predictor variables was unclear (e.g. in machine learning-based methods). For example, nitrogen fertilisation of semiarid shrubland can drive both linear and quadratic relationships in community data (annual plants, microorganisms, biocrusts, edaphic fauna) depending on bottom-up effects, top-down effects, or reciprocal effects (Ochoa-Hueso, 2016). However, the interactive effects of other stressors might change the nature of these relationships (e.g. quadratic to logistic). As a more complex example, freshwater flow in streams can drive changes in environmental parameters such as a linear change in temperature. This temperature change can cause non-linear shifts in community driven by taxa with steep temperature sensitivities (logistic-type shift) while other taxa increase more smoothly but are simultaneously affected by other parameters such as oxygen availability (e.g. Gaussian-type response to temperature and oxygen combinations) (see Rosenfeld, 2017). Currently, no techniques have been applied to detect thresholds from a broader ecosystem-based perspective by the combination of non-linear interactions between variables for high-dimensionality data. Below we describe some of the most common methods for identifying

state shift thresholds to determine their advantages but also limitations regarding incorporation of non-linear interactions between variables and the use of broad data sets.

III. METHODS BASED ON FEW VARIABLES AND LOW DIMENSIONALITY

(1) Segmented or changepoint regression

Segmented regression is a technique that identifies discontinuities in data based on changing slopes. This type of regression can involve non-linear regression with a ‘hinge’ function where the trajectory of data transitions smoothly (Toms & Lesperance, 2003; Francesco Ficetola & Denoël, 2009; Carstensen & Weydmann, 2012). It also has the advantage of identifying the specific value at which the data trajectory changes. The non-linear method is based on models that allow a smooth transition between two segments of different slopes (Fig. 4A). Several smooth transition models can be applied for this purpose, such as hyperbolic-tangent, locally estimated scatterplot smoothing (LOESS), and others (see Toms & Lesperance, 2003; Carstensen & Weydmann, 2012), and the fit of the model is evaluated by calculating the Akaike Information Criterion (AIC) and Bayesian Information Criterion (BIC). Changepoint regression works in a similar manner as segmented regression but does not identify a change in slope. Rather, it focuses on separating segments of response variable Y where the mean and variance change along predictor X using sequential F tests (Fig. 4B). Both segmented and changepoint regressions are commonly used to determine shifts in univariate or multivariate data sets, including multiple ecosystem components or stressors. However, they can only infer shifts in one ecosystem component against one stressor at a time. In the case of multiple variables, one can either alternate between different pairs of ecosystem components and stressors (e.g. Berdugo *et al.*, 2020) or utilise multivariate analysis of ecosystem components to identify shifts of multiple components against time or a stressor. For example, they are commonly used together with PCA or multidimensional

scaling (MDS) of ecological communities, to determine where along a time series or stressor gradient the community shifts (e.g. Xuan *et al.*, 2019). In either of these alternatives, segmented and changepoint regressions are unable to capture and use interlinkages between different variables to infer shifts in the state of the variables. In addition, segmented or changepoint regressions may not always identify the correct breakpoints in the data (e.g. with noisy data) and small variations or transformation of the data may cause large differences in threshold identification (Francesco Ficetola & Denoël, 2009; Matthews *et al.*, 2014; Gkioulekas & Papageorgiou, 2019).

(2) Curve-based methods

An alternative, purely non-linear, method for threshold detection involves fitting a curvilinear model to the data and identifying the points at which major changes in trajectory occur. Curve fitting is commonly used for detecting thresholds in different disciplines because of the multitude of possibilities available for fitting different types of data sets. For example, quadratic, Gaussian, or Weibull functions are often applied in thermal biology to estimate temperature thresholds of metabolic activity or thermal performance (Angilletta, 2006; Sinclair *et al.*, 2016). On the other hand, log-logistic type functions are often more appropriate in dose–response types of analysis such as in ecotoxicology or biochemistry (Ritz *et al.*, 2015). Finally, generalised additive models (GAMs), or modified versions such as threshold-GAM, are widely used in many ecological contexts for identification of thresholds from large data sets that may have different types of predictor variables (continuous, categorical, or ordinal), data sets that contain missing values, and data sets with one or more potential turning points (Benedetti *et al.*, 2009; Samhouri *et al.*, 2017; Aspin *et al.*, 2019). Thresholds from fitted curves can be detected from changes in the first and second derivatives of the curves which represent the slope and inflection, respectively. The

derivatives can be calculated directly for any curvilinear model individually and used to identify a threshold. Alternatively, multiple derivatives from different bandwidths of a curvilinear model can be calculated by SiZer (Fig. 5; Sonderegger *et al.*, 2009) and plotted on a SiZer map to identify a threshold based on the best fitting model bandwidth (tuning parameter that controls the smoothness of the resulting curve).

SiZer is a method that uses a non-parametric method to approximate the response function and derivatives, and then uses these to identify thresholds (Sonderegger *et al.*, 2009). The advantage of SiZer is that it makes fewer assumptions than conventional threshold models (e.g. segmented-type regressions) and uses a range of smoothing functions in the process of determining a threshold in the predictor variable. When fitting a curvilinear model to data (e.g. LOESS, locally weighted polynomial), the first and second derivatives inform the user on the change in trajectory of the data. However, one major complication comes with the choice of the smoothing function and its derivatives. Since smoothing algorithms are dependent on a bandwidth (tuning parameter; h) that defines how smooth the resulting curve is, the choice of bandwidth will determine whether the curve overfits or underfits the data. For example, three lines are fitted to the data based on three different bandwidths (Fig. 5A; SiZer uses locally weighted polynomial as a default). At $h = 7$ (blue) the curve underfits the data whereas at $h = 0.7$ (yellow), the curve overfits the data. At $h = 2$ (green), the line seems less likely to be underfitted or overfitted. SiZer uses a range of bandwidth values (ranging between 0.5 and 10) to fit the model to the data and then produces a SiZer map (Fig. 5B) that plots the first and second derivative values along the fitted curve for each bandwidth. The white lines give a visual representation of the size of the bandwidth. The horizontal distance between the lines is drawn to be $2h$, indicating the effective width of the locally weighted polynomial (Chaudhuri & Marron, 1999; Sonderegger *et al.*, 2009). In the SiZer maps, blue represents a positive derivative value (i.e. 95% CI only contains positive values), red

represents a negative derivative value (i.e. 95% CI only contains negative values), and purple represents possibly zero (i.e. 95% CI contains some zero values). To interpret the sizer map and identify a tipping point, one identifies when the derivative crosses zero to become either negative or positive, i.e. there is a turning point in the line fit. This turning point represents when the response of the ecosystem component changes along the gradient of a pressure or along a temporal scale. In Fig. 5, the first derivative shows a clear change at around 2005 and the second derivative shows that two changes occurred (~2005 and ~2012–2013) in the response variable when the model at bandwidth $h = 2$ is fitted. The maps also show that at $h = 7$, the model fails to identify any major shifts, i.e. only the broad pattern in the data is represented. On the other hand, at $h = 0.7$, the model overfits the data and identifies many shifts, i.e. more detailed patterns in the data come into focus. Therefore, from Fig. 5 it can be inferred there is a large change in the response of the ecosystem component in year 2005, and somewhere between 2012 and 2013. SiZer thus provides a means of assessing the data set at different scales to gain a clear understanding of the trends in the data (see Appendix S2).

Using curve-based models for threshold detection allows for the application of purely non-linear techniques that can capture different types of relationships between variables and effectively identify a point where the predictor causes a non-linear change in the response variable. Nonetheless, some models may perform better than others depending on the spread of the data (e.g. more gradual patterns or abruptly changing patterns). For example, piecewise regressions and GAMs allow for the distinction between linear and non-linear dynamics and tend correctly to identify breakpoints in data while logistic regressions do not perform well with more gradual patterns in data [see Francesco-Ficetola & Denoël (2009) and Rocha-Santos *et al.* (2016)]. In addition, depending on the amount of data available, false detection of a threshold may be a problem. For example, for a data set with less than 50 observations, SiZer would generally minimise false detections compared to piecewise regressions or

changepoint regressions although care must be taken when selecting the bandwidth (see Daily *et al.*, 2012). Importantly, however, the problem regarding integration of multiple variables and their combined interlinkages remains unresolved. This is because in their current use, curve-based models have primarily (although not always) been applied for one-on-one regressions. Nonetheless, they do offer the possibility of extending analysis to more variables. For example, GAMs can include multiple covariates and interactive effects. In addition, GAMs such as threshold-GAM or continuous interaction GAM provide the ability to estimate interlinking effects between more than two variables (Ciannelli *et al.*, 2004). Similarly, log-logistic (dose–response) models commonly used in ecotoxicology studies also offer the possibility of deriving the influence of a predictor variable on the effect that another predictor variable has on a response variable, that is, implementing antagonistic, synergistic, or additive effects (Bjergager *et al.*, 2017). While the possibility of incorporating multiple variables exists, the appropriate application of GAMs or dose–response models to inferring thresholds from multiple interacting predictor and response variables is yet to be implemented.

(3) Multivariate analysis-based method

The application of multivariate analysis for the detection of thresholds allows the use of large data sets with high dimensionality. Therefore, this provides an opportunity to infer shifts in stable state of a whole community or ecosystem over time or in response to a stressor.

However, the first step in this analysis of large data sets with high dimensionality is to use a dimensionality-reduction technique, such as MDS or PCA, to compress the data by linear combinations while seeking to maximise explanation of the variation in the data with the fewest variables (Petersen *et al.*, 2008; Andersen *et al.*, 2009; Van Der Maaten, Postma & van den Herik, 2009). In PCA, for example, each sample is allocated a PC score which denotes its

position from the first PC line (PC1), or the second PC line (PC2) and so on, that reflect the variation in the data set (Abdi & Williams, 2010). The PC1 or PC2 scores of the samples can then be plotted against time or a stressor to identify whether there is a large change in PC scores over time or along a stressor gradient. The point at which there is a large change in PC scores denotes a shift in response of the whole community along the timescale or pressure gradient. A segmented or changepoint regression is commonly used to identify more clearly the time or stressor value where the shift in PC scores occurs and infer statistical significance (e.g. Xuan *et al.*, 2019; Tonno *et al.*, 2021). The majority of ecological studies that aim at identifying thresholds from multivariate data tend to be based on PCA or MDS for dimensionality reduction. While these methods deliver good estimations of when an ecosystem or community may shift, there are several issues that make them inadequate for estimating interactive and non-linear effects. Firstly, PCA or MDS are strictly linear-based dimensionality-reduction techniques, meaning that any non-linear relationships between the predictor variables or between the response variables are disregarded. To include non-linear relationships, PCA or MDS may be replaced by other techniques such as non-linear canonical correlation analysis, non-metric MDS (with non-linear function), or stochastic neighbour embedding. Secondly, they focus on the variables that produce the most variation in the data set, that is, they disregard the effects of some variables and their potential interlinking effects with other variables (problems related to proportion of variance represented; McCune & Grace, 2002). As such, they do not represent the full variation in the set of variables since generally only the PC1 or PC2 scores are utilised, thus they can have issues with consistency and accuracy (McCune & Grace, 2002). Thirdly, PC1 scores are generally plotted against time or one stressor at a time, meaning that interactive effects of multiple stressors are not accounted for. A possible alternative to a PCA-based method would be to use multivariate adaptive regression splines (MARS). MARS, most commonly used for species distribution

models, can typically allow examination of the relationship between one response variable and multiple interacting pressure variables. Additionally, it can be used with multiple response variables by averaging the residual squared errors across all response variables (species) and using this average to investigate the effect of multiple interacting pressures, through piecewise regressions, in driving these changes in species composition. However, by averaging residual squared errors, it does not include non-linear interactions between species. Finally, unless paired with a segmented or changepoint regression, this PCA-based method remains primarily graphical. Alternatively, one may use a chronological clustering technique with a distance-based matrix (typically Euclidean), which is able to determine the timepoint of change in community structure through Ward's linkage method or other similar linkage methods (Legendre, Dallot & Legendre, 1985; Andersen *et al.*, 2009).

IV. METHODS THAT INCORPORATE BOTH MULTIPLE PREDICTORS AND MULTIPLE RESPONSE VARIABLES

(1) Importance of variable selection

Prior to discussing the methods that incorporate multiple variables to identify tipping points, it is imperative to stress that properly considering relevant variables for analysis should be a priority before formal analysis. Firstly, the quality and quantity of data required to undertake any specific test properly needs to be considered carefully as some analyses require large and very high-quality data sets, while others may be more forgiving. Secondly, the selection of variables should emphasise relevant community–environment relationships. Common problems of overfitting or overinterpretation otherwise may arise. For example, ecological modelling and the increasing use of machine learning techniques have seen the usage of numerous predictor variables incorporated into models without clear consensus on their importance or relevance to the response variables. Such practice can drive model overfitting

and unreliable predictions through autocorrelation (Meyer *et al.*, 2019), imbalance between accuracy and stability (Fox *et al.*, 2017), inability to detect whether a variable indeed has an effect or not (Galipaud *et al.*, 2014), and increased Type 1 error and overestimation of explained variance (Blanchet, Legendre & Borcard, 2008), among others. Therefore, it is important for the researchers to familiarise themselves with the response and predictor variables they use, and cautiously select the variables that promote relevant signal (through ecological relevance, for example) rather than those that just add noise.

(2) Machine learning methods

The past decade or so has seen an exponential rise in the application of machine learning techniques for ecological methods. Naturally, the development of machine learning techniques such as regression trees, boosted regression trees, and random forest have benefitted methods for detecting tipping points (e.g. Lintz *et al.*, 2011; Ellis *et al.*, 2012). Among the most versatile methods incorporating multiple predictor and response variables in the detection of thresholds and ecosystem state change is the use of gradient forest (Ellis *et al.*, 2012) – an extension of random forest aimed at identifying overall ecosystem component compositional changes based on pressure gradients (Fig. 6; see detailed description in Appendix S2). The method identifies splits in each response variable data set based on the predictor gradient and synthesises cross-validated and dimensionless R^2 values and accuracy importance measures from random forests for each response variable. Consequently, it results in a ranking of predictors based on their importance in driving compositional turnover in response variables and indicates where along the pressure gradient such compositional turnover occurs. The levels of the highest ranked predictors at which most response variables split are considered thresholds that will likely cause the compositions to tip into an alternative stable state. Secondly, the method uses the cumulative importance of splits in the data along

the stressor gradient to identify where along the stressor a threshold may be. While the method includes multiple response and predictor variables and identifies the predictors that are most influential on driving tipping points, a major drawback is the incapacity of implementing interconnections between variables, that is, non-linear interactions between multiple response or predictor variables. In addition, the method is based on one-to-one inference of predictor impact on response variables, although the conditional importance (in relation to other predictors) of predictors is considered. In that sense, in its current form, this method provides a useful avenue for including multiple variables, but still fails at implementing non-linear interactions, unlike boosted regression trees, for example, which can determine interactive effects but at the cost of the ability to determine which predictor variables are most influential on the response variables. In addition, gradient forest does not maintain the overall dimensionality of data, especially by analysing predictor variables individually.

More recently, a multiple factor model was utilised to incorporate the combined effects of multiple pressures on driving tipping points in phytoplankton productivity and species composition globally (Ban, Hu & Li, 2022). The model included ensemble learning and a stacking method for stressors that combines several individual models to obtain better performance by training the first-level regressors with the training set and then the second-level regressors as a meta-regressor using predictions from the first-level regressors as input (Breiman, 1996; Ganaie *et al.*, 2022). Ban *et al.* (2022) also applied multilayer perceptron (MLP) algorithms to determine the effect of multiple stressors on phytoplankton production and species composition. MLP models are neural network-based models with the capability of learning non-linear functions between an input and the output layer, including one or more non-linear layers in between, meaning that the non-linear interactions of multiple variables can be accounted for (see Taud & Mas, 2018). Following these models incorporating the

effects of multiple pressures, Ban *et al.* (2022) then analysed changes in phytoplankton productivity and species richness trends as a function of multi-stressors over time. The use of MLP or stacking methods opens the way towards better integration of interlinking multi-stressor impacts on response variables, even if phytoplankton interspecies interactions are not accounted for. Unfortunately, however, another issue remaining is a lack of transparency on how exactly multiple stressors are interacting with each other, a common problem with machine learning techniques.

(3) Combined multivariate method

A commonly applied method for detecting shifts in ecosystem state is one that utilises multivariate plotting (e.g. PCA or MDS) of ecosystem components and subsequent plots of the multivariate scores (e.g. PC1 scores) against time or a pressure to detect where along the timescale or pressure intensity a major change in PC scores occurs (e.g. Hare & Mantua, 2000; Möllmann *et al.*, 2009; Xuan *et al.*, 2019). This shows whether there is a major shift in the overall composition of the ecosystem components and where along the timescale or pressure intensity gradient this shift occurs. The common problems with this method, as presented above, are (1) its inability to capture non-linear relationships between ecosystem components, (2) distortion effects by reduction of dimensionality, (3) the inability to infer the effect of covarying pressures (two or more pressures) on ecosystem components, and (4) that it is mainly graphical, unless it is paired with segmented-type regressions. It is also important to consider the values of ecosystem components used in the analyses as when some ecosystem components have large values (e.g. high abundances) and others low values, an ‘arched’ distribution in the two-dimensional representation may be obtained which may bias the interpretation of shifts in the composition of ecosystem components.

Nonetheless, assuming a system where (1) and (2) are of low concern, multivariate-based methods have seen major development in terms of incorporation of the effects of multiple pressures in determining tipping points (Fig. 7; Vasilakopoulos & Marshall, 2015; see Appendix S4). In brief, this is achieved by using PC scores obtained from PCAs of response variables (RV PC) and predictors (Pred PC), independently. Shifts in PC scores, either RV PC or Pred PC along a timeline are detected by sequential regime shift detection. The RV PC, which represents the shift between alternate states, and the predictor PCs are incorporated into a GAM and threshold-GAM model to determine the effects of combined predictors on combined response variables [hence, the term ‘combined multivariate method’]. The RV PC is then plotted against the Pred PC, and different models are fitted (fit of null, linear, quadratic, cubic) at the alternate states to determine the relationship between RV PC and Pred PC at each alternate state. The estimated position of a tipping point (e.g. in which year) can be visualised by adding a line to the best fitted models and associating each data point on the graph to its categorical value (e.g. the year). Consequently, the year in which the fitted model shows the largest change (e.g. change in slope or a breakpoint) denotes the year when the combined predictor variables caused a large shift in the combined response variables. Subsequent additions to this method include the analysis of one- or two-year lags in pressure components as explanatory variables in the GAM and threshold-GAM models to identify whether delays in ecosystem responses to pressures are involved (Vasilakopoulos *et al.*, 2017). While this multivariate approach integrates multiple pressures in determining tipping points using multiple ecosystem components, the inherent issues regarding its inability to integrate non-linear relationships between either ecosystem components or pressure remains a limitation. In addition, the multivariability is reduced to univariability because it reduces the variation of multiple response variables and predictor variables to one response PC and one predictor PC which are then typically used in a one-to-one regression. Finally, here, the

time lags between response and predictor variables are being examined from the PCA scores. Alternatively, one may also analyse lags between the variables (e.g. between responses A, B, and predictor C) and adjusting their data prior to performing the PCAs. While this may potentially increase the accuracy of implementing lags and response/predictor relationships within this method, it may also complicate analyses.

(4) Dose–response-based method

Dose–response methods are commonly used in biochemistry, ecotoxicology, and microbiology. Their application involves identifying well-defined changes in the response of a substance based on the concentration (dose) of another (Ruberg, 1995; Goutelle *et al.*, 2008). Dose–response analyses are mostly based on log-logistic-type regressions, which can identify the dose of a substance required to cause a large non-linear shift in the response of another substance. Responses can be continuous, binary, or discrete (Ritz *et al.*, 2015). The application of this method in identifying tipping points using pressure and response variable empirical data can be derived from the determination of half-maximal effective concentration (EC_{50}). EC_{50} represents the concentration of a substance that causes 50% of the maximal response of another. In ecological terms, it would represent the pressure intensity resulting in 50% of the maximal response of an ecosystem component (Fig. 8). EC_{50} on the log-logistic model is situated where the gradient of the line is the steepest, meaning that a small additional increase in pressure can drive a large change in ecosystem component response, similar to tipping points.

Dose–response models can be applied using multiple simultaneously occurring pressures to identify tipping points in response variables (Yadav *et al.*, 2015). To visualise this, one may plot the log-logistic response of a variable against a gradient of pressure A, given different intensities of pressure B (e.g. 0%, 20%, 40%, 60%) and determine the new EC_{50} of pressure

A based on the intensity of pressure B (Bjergager *et al.*, 2017). Fig. 8 shows different interactive effects that pressures can have on response variables and that can be reflected through dose–response curves. For example, additive effects (Fig. 8A) of pressures A and B would cause the EC_{50} of the response variable to decrease through a combination of the individual effects of A and B. On the other hand, in antagonistic interaction (Fig. 8B), the pressures counteract each other's effects and therefore the EC_{50} of the response variable increases when both pressures A and B are present. Finally, in a synergistic effect (Fig. 8C), pressures A and B interact to reduce the EC_{50} of the response variable, but not in a simply additive manner. For example, in Fig. 8C, although the EC_{50} of pressures A and B are similar, their interactive effect decreases the response variable EC_{50} (green line). A threshold for synergy can be considered as the intensity of pressure B that decreases the EC_{50} of pressure A by another 50% (Bjergager *et al.*, 2017). The advantage of using dose–response models to identify tipping points is that, theoretically, one can implement a large suite of pressures in a stepwise manner and determine their cumulative impacts at different intensities. In addition, dose–response models allow one to take a more conservative approach by defining a tipping point as the EC_{25} , for example, rather than EC_{50} . While dose–response models can work well with multiple pressures, simultaneously determining the effects of multiple response variables can remain difficult as it would require some type of index that combines multiple response variables (e.g. multifunctionality index, diversity index) or the use of multivariate dose–response modelling (multivariate analysis of variance-based model; Brown *et al.*, 2012). These may still not allow incorporating non-linear relationships between the response variables. Incorporation of multiple response and predictor variables and their non-linear interlinkages may require adaptation of methods such as multivariate non-linear regression for use with dose–response curves.

V. FUTURE PERSPECTIVES

The need for a broad ecosystem-based approach for detecting shifts in ecosystem stable state has become more evident as we increasingly understand the complex relationships between multiple ecosystem variables, and the interplay between ecological mechanisms driving ecosystem responses to multiple interlinked stressors (Botero *et al.*, 2015; Dakos *et al.*, 2019; Hillebrand *et al.*, 2023). While examining how one or few ecological processes change over time is useful for understanding parts of an ecosystem, it is insufficient to guide broad-scale ecosystem management. For example, detailed understanding of specific processes that drive components such as fisheries, biodiversity, or ecosystem functions are important. However, in terms of broad ecosystem management, focusing on these components individually will limit the extent to which ecosystem management is possible. In addition, the continued ‘layering’ of multiple stressors (either driven by human activity or climate change) creates a novel environment to which multiple species must continually acclimate or adapt, and in which they co-exist (Thompson *et al.*, 2021; Ward *et al.*, 2023). Managing such changing ecosystems requires an understanding of the multitude of processes and interactions that are changing and which of these are likely to cause a major shift in the ecosystem state. Several frameworks have been developed to estimate such risks and to develop possible management strategies related to multiple environmental pressures and their possible interaction with ecosystem components [e.g. Resist-Accept-Direct (RAD) (Thompson *et al.*, 2021), or Spatial Cumulative Assessment of Impact Risk for Management (SCAIRM) (Piet *et al.*, 2023)]. However, while these frameworks provide an overview of management possibilities for ecosystems that are changing, including possible state shifts, they are unable to quantify exactly how these ecosystems are changing, and which pressure combinations may be leading to tipping points.

Reflecting the spatiotemporal complexity of ecosystem dynamics, including variation in intensity of multiple stressors and their non-linear effects on metacommunity interactions remains statistically challenging. Nonetheless, several methods have attempted to combine multiple ecosystem variables in a multivariate manner and to use that combination to detect shifts in ecosystem stable state. These methods have generally been successfully applied to detect shifts in empirical data that may signify thresholds leading to tipping points. Overall, these methods (including machine learning or dimension reduction-based methods) are robust in terms of statistical performance, however, care should be taken in interpreting their outcomes in relation to ecological relevance. It is important to select the predictor and response variables carefully based on ecological relevance and the hypothesis being tested rather than compiling all possible variables. Importantly, the major limitation of most of these approaches is the lack of inclusion of non-linear relationships between variables as many of these techniques are based on linear relationships (Table 2). Secondly, even when data from numerous variables are utilised, the methods reduce dimensionality by using one-to-one regressions, or PCA followed by one-to-one regression of PC scores against time or a predictor. This means that, although these methods tend to capture some broadly shifting patterns in data that can signify thresholds, they fail to capture the complex non-linear interactions that cause, or in some cases prevent, ecosystems to shift between stable states. Therefore, to provide a more holistic, ecosystem-based approach to determining ecosystem state shifts from ecological data, these two major limitations need to be addressed.

High-dimensionality data is a common feature of disciplines such as information technology, astronomy, or bioinformatics. Its use and application in ecology remains relatively low, although in fields such as evolutionary biology it has become a necessity. One of the biggest advantages of using high-dimensionality data in ecology is its ability to capture complex relationships within the data, and it can be used for detailed analysis/modelling where subtle

changes in data may inform about important processes (such as in genomics/proteomics/transcriptomics). Hence, high-dimensionality data can allow for comprehensive and precise representation of both complex ecological processes and more nuanced ecological processes which may be missed when low dimensionality data are used. Working with high-dimensionality data, however, has its own problems (Clarke *et al.*, 2008). Firstly, high-dimensionality data have the ‘curse of dimensionality’, i.e. data are noisy, which can lead to estimation instability, model overfitting and local convergence. Inferring true patterns in the data therefore may be difficult (which is why some methods reduce dimensionality before analysis). In addition, high-dimensionality data are inherently quite large data sets requiring high computing power and appropriate statistics (e.g. Bühlmann & Van De Geer, 2011; Bühlmann, Kalisch & Meier, 2014). Finally, visualisation of data and patterns becomes more complex with increasing dimensionality, since we tend to be limited to three-dimensional visualisation (x,y,z). However, multiple tools now are available for processing and visualising high-dimensionality data which can be applied in an ecological context (see Liu *et al.*, 2016). Considering that computing power is increasing and multiple high-dimensionality data-handling techniques can be transferred from other fields (e.g. bioinformatics, information technology) and adapted to ecology, the prospect of using high-dimensionality data in ecology for detecting changes in overall ecosystem stable states is high, but remains to be adequately implemented. While retaining dimensionality and taking a broad ecosystem-based approach to identifying shifts in stable state is important, caution must be used in the selection of variables, especially predictor variables. In this sense, high dimensionality may mean the selection of different numbers of parameters for different ecosystems and that the complexity of the ecosystem (i.e. the number of interacting parameters that drive the ecosystem) will determine the number of parameters included.

Although current methods are not yet suitable for fully integrating non-linear intervariable interactions and high-dimensionality ecological data, some methods seem to have the potential for further extension to allow analysis of complex ecosystem non-linear interactions and changes in stable state. For example, network analysis can comprehensively incorporate non-linear relationships between multiple predictor and response variables to examine ecosystem state (e.g. Ban *et al.*, 2022; Hemraj *et al.*, 2017). Deep learning neural networks offer great potential to integrate multiple ecosystem variables as they were designed to incorporate complex interlinkages systematically and are thus appropriate to predict changes in behaviour of ecosystems in relation to increasing environmental stressors (Özesmi & Özesmi, 1999; Millie *et al.*, 2012). However, a major drawback is that they provide little explanatory insight into the relative influence of each variable and how predictions are made, although there may be potential to overcome such drawbacks (Arrieta *et al.*, 2020). In addition, without multiple preventive adjustments (e.g. Ying, 2019), overfitting of models becomes a common problem. To provide better clarity on intervariable relationships, network-based methods can be complemented with non-linear models which can then be incorporated within the network. Causal networks (or interaction networks) are such an example whereby the relationship between variables is predefined and then implemented into an interaction network to determine the state of an ecosystem and its drivers (e.g. Chang *et al.*, 2022; Zhao *et al.*, 2023). This would allow for the determination of multiple ecosystem states based on the interactions between all the variables that drive that ecosystem. An alternative to network techniques that potentially can maintain high dimensionality and integrate non-linear relationships would be the curve-based dose–response model. Dose–response models are based on the non-linear relationship between a response variable and a predictor. The idea would be to integrate the interactions of multiple response variables and multiple predictors, simultaneously. As described above, the integration of multiple predictors

can be done by predicting a response to a predictor as a function of other predictors (i.e. interactive effects). Interaction between multiple response variables is generally integrated through multivariate dose–response models, but these disregard non-linear relationships between response variables (Brown *et al.*, 2012) and a non-linear adaptation of this method will be required. Similarly, GAMs or MARS offer the ability to identify interactive effects of multiple predictors on a response variable, however, integrating the interactive responses of multiple response variables remains to be implemented.

VI. CONCLUSIONS

- (1) Multiple methods exist to detect thresholds and tipping points in empirical data, but they inherently lack the capacity to evaluate comprehensively the state of the ecosystem because they either do not account for non-linear interactions between multiple ecosystem variables or they reduce dimensionality in some way.
- (2) Hillebrand *et al.* (2020) argued that tipping points cannot be detected in empirical data and even if a threshold is identified in the data, its real-life application in terms of broader ecosystem management may be limited. We identified that current methods used for detecting shifts in stable state are not comprehensive enough and the number of predictors or response variables used are often low meaning that ecosystem shifts are being inferred from changes in only part of the ecosystem.
- (3) Nevertheless, there are techniques that have the potential to assess the state of an ecosystem more comprehensively and detect shifts between stable states, if these are present. These methods require large amounts of high-dimensionality data, which may not always be available.
- (4) Inferring ecosystem state shifts from restricted data sets or from only a few components of an ecosystem may capture important changes in subsystems or processes but not overall

shift in ecosystem stable state because they do not fully capture the overall response of the ecosystem in relation to all its combined stressors.

(5) In terms of analysing ecosystem state and detecting shifts that may occur, the underlying question remains whether high-dimensionality data should become a rule, rather than an exception, for inferring broad ecosystem state patterns.

(6) Our perception of tipping points may have been driven by partial data sets and the methods available for analysing them. However, the new challenges in detecting tipping points from a broader ecosystem context suggest that the development of more holistic analytics is required to understand better how and to what extent ecosystems shift stable states.

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IX. SUPPORTING INFORMATION

Additional supporting information may be found online in the Supporting Information section at the end of the article.

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Table S1. Classification of included studies based on the number of predictors and response variables used to determine non-linear thresholds in data.

Appendix S1. Identification and screening process through systematic review following the PRISMA method.

Appendix S2. Stepwise workflow to use SiZer for detecting tipping points from data.

Appendix S3. Steps to use gradient forest as a tool to identify thresholds in response data along predictor gradients.

Appendix S4. Steps for combining principal components analyses (PCAs) from multiple response variables and predictors to determine state shift on a temporal scale.

Figure legends

Fig. 1. Example of a simplified coastal ecosystem with three subsystems. Internal feedback loops within all three subsystems and their interaction with external forcing need to be accounted for to achieve an ecosystem-based approach to evaluate state shifts of this ecosystem. The relationships between components of subsystems and the forcing parameters may be linear or non-linear and can change through cumulative effects. The arrows and symbols indicate the type of interaction (positive or negative) between ecosystem components or pressures.

Fig. 2. Model ecosystem response to multi-layered stressors. A shift in stable state, if present, may be delayed due to multiple ecological mechanisms (e.g. population dynamics, community interactions, functional redundancy, evolutionary mechanisms, extinction debt), however, it is often preceded by a loss of resilience and stability. Recovery to a reference state is generally lengthy and complex, requiring careful management of the ecosystem.

Fig. 3. Categorisation of included studies that utilise or describe methods for identifying thresholds ($N = 507$). Studies were classified (as percentage of total number of studies reviewed) based on the dimensionality (one or multiple dimensions) of data used. The remaining 17% were review studies on specific habitats, methods, or management perspectives. The graphs within each category show the percentage contribution of the most common methods used for threshold detection to that category. The green arrows show the percentage of studies within each category that did not integrate intervariable interactions in their analyses, and thus reduced the dimensionality of their data for analysis. N = number of studies in each category. MDS, multidimensional scaling; PCA, principal components analysis.

Fig. 4. Illustration of the segmented (A) and changepoint (B) methods for detection of shifts in empirical data. Segmented regression usually uses a non-linear regression with a ‘hinge’ function (A: dotted line). Changepoint analysis is generally based on sequential F -tests.

Fig. 5. Using significant zero crossing (SiZer) to detect a threshold from non-linear models by considering different fitting bandwidths (h = tuning parameter). Different bandwidths are used to fit the model to the data (A), after which the SiZer maps of first and second derivatives are produced (B). In (B) the red are represents a negative derivative, blue

represents a positive derivative, and purple is when the derivative is zero. The white lines give a visual representation of the size of the bandwidth. Figures were made by generating a data set specifically to exemplify this method and using the *SiZer* package in R (<https://cran.r-project.org/web/packages/SiZer/index.html>) to run the analyses. The data and R code used for model testing are available publicly on Zenodo at <https://zenodo.org/records/10077651>.

Fig. 6. Workflow of the gradient forest method involving measurement of impurity importance from random forest (A), ranking of pressures (B), assessing the effect of each predictor on all response variables (C), determining the effect of each predictor on each variable (D), and identifying the thresholds caused by each predictor based on the cumulative importance of splits (E). See Appendix S3 for further details. Figures were made by generating a random data set and using the *gradientForest* package in R (<https://gradientforest.r-forge.r-project.org/>) to exemplify the analyses. The data and R code used for model testing are available publicly on Zenodo at <https://zenodo.org/records/10077651>.

Fig. 7. Representation of the method developed by Vasilakopoulos & Marshall (2015) that utilises principal components analyses (PCAs) of response and predictor variables (A) to determine shifts in ecosystems. The changes in each predictor (Pred) and response variable (RV) over time are visualised with a traffic light plot (B) and the combined PC scores are plotted against time (C). The relationship between response variables and predictor variables PC scores then is analysed with a general additive model (GAM) and threshold-GAM (TGAM), after which a bifurcation graph is plotted, indicating the possible year around

which major shifts have occurred (E). All graphs are from an imaginary scenario. See Appendix S3 for further details.

Fig. 8. Dose–response representation of an ecosystem response in relation to interacting pressures. Circles indicate the model’s EC_{50} (half-maximal effective concentration). Additive effects (A) lead to a reduction in the EC_{50} due to addition of the effects of pressure A and B. Antagonistic effects (B) reduce the overall effect of pressures A and B. Finally, synergistic effects (C) are produced through an interaction of pressures that together cause a stronger impact than each individual pressure alone, but not in a simply additive manner.

Figure 1

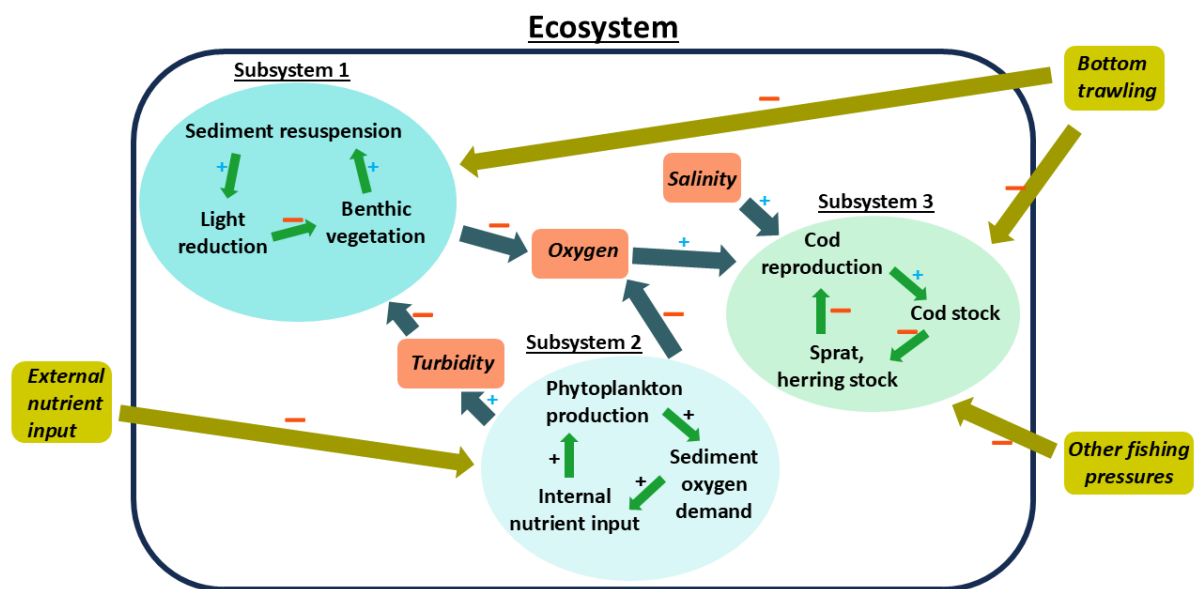


Figure 2

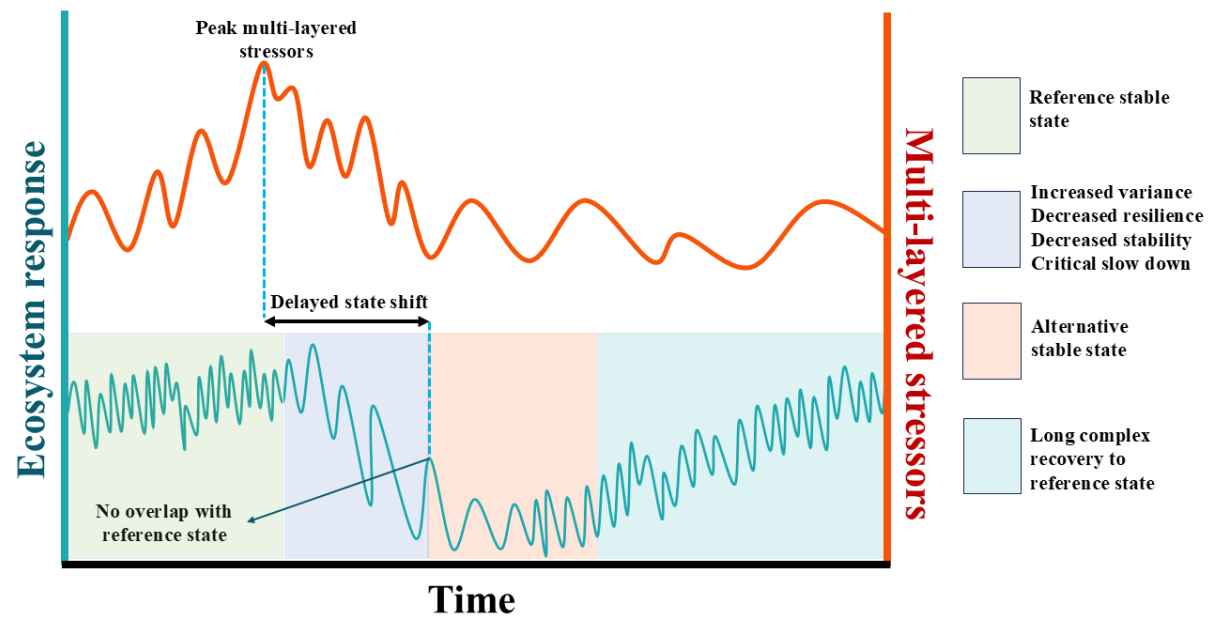


Figure 3

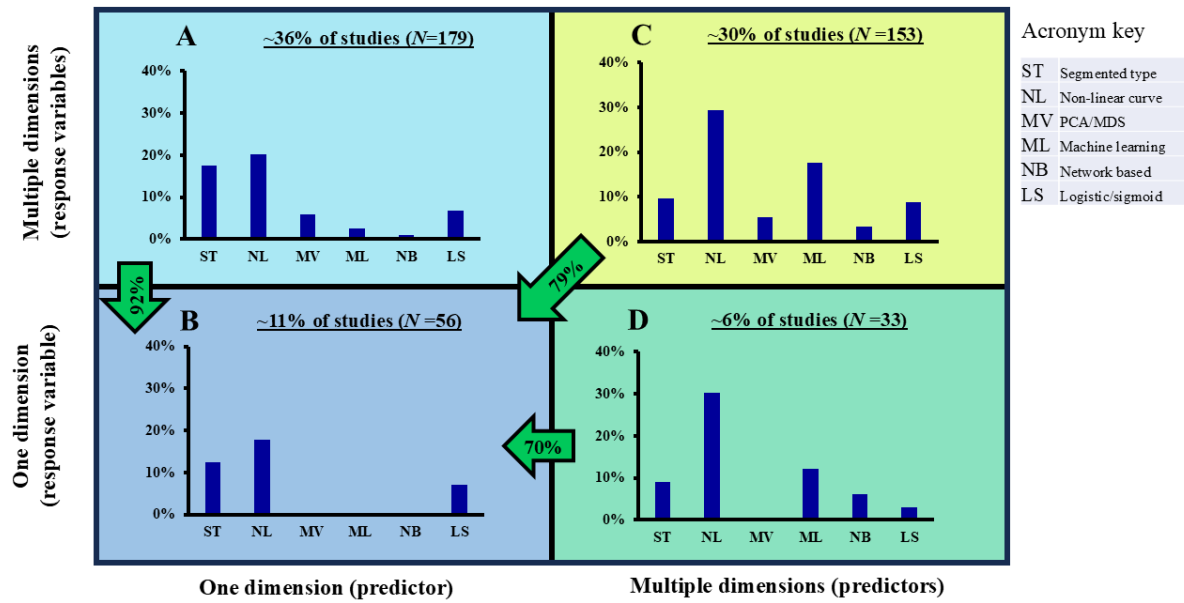


Figure 4

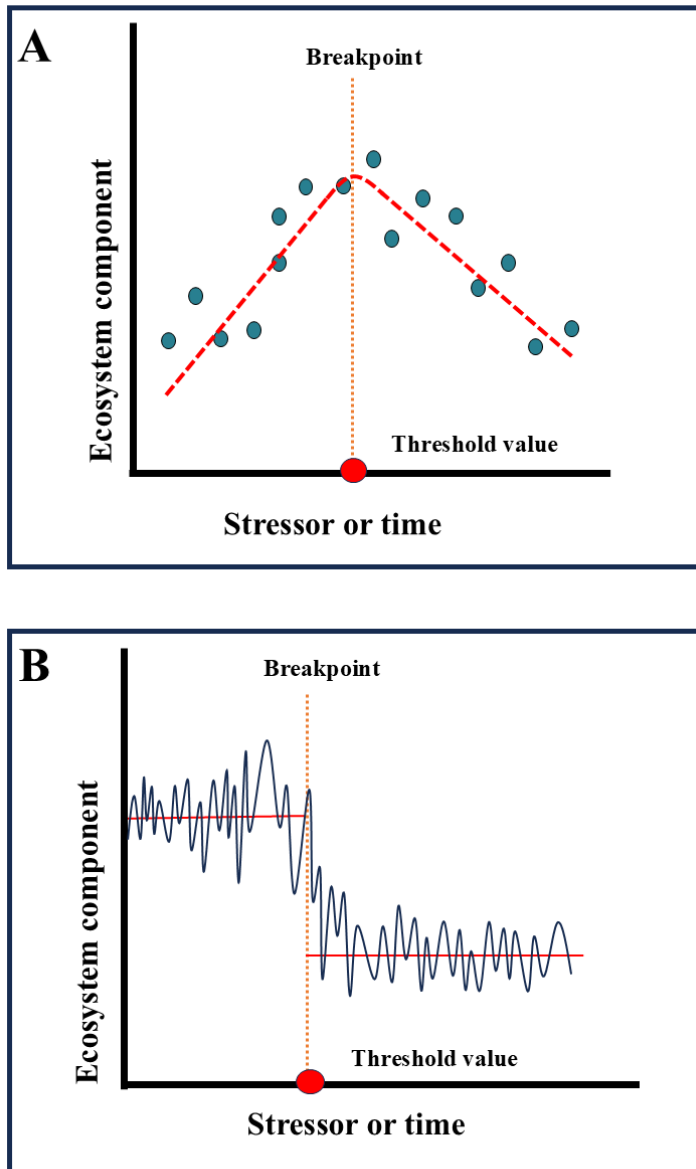


Figure 5

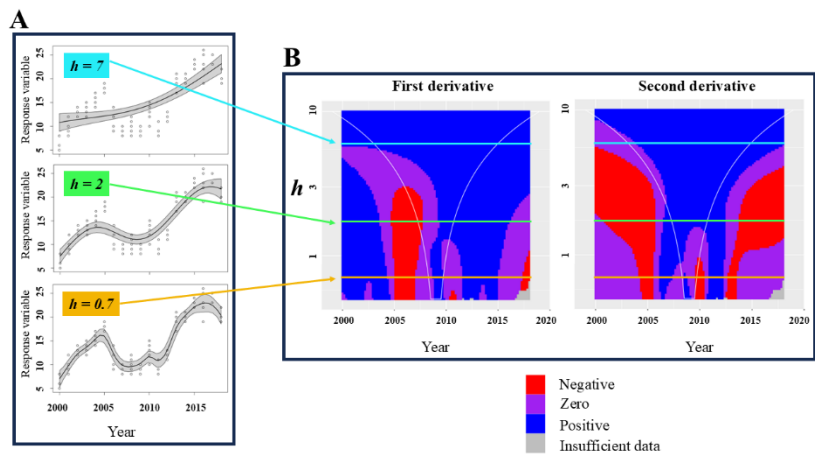


Figure 6

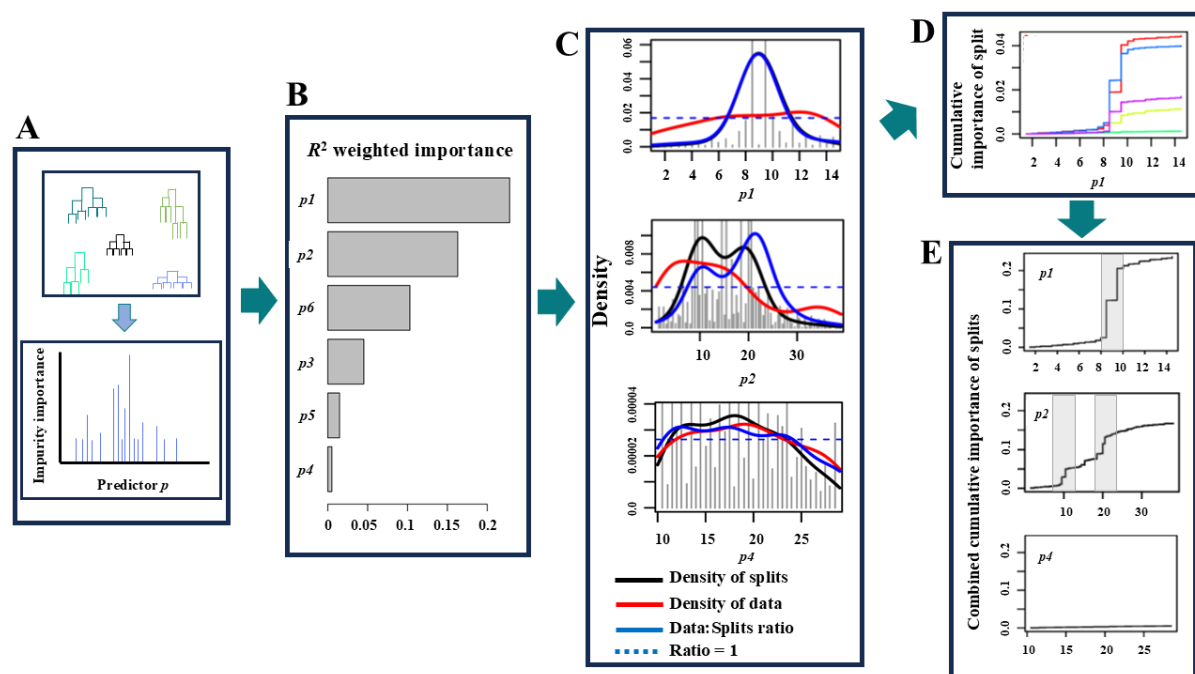


Figure 7

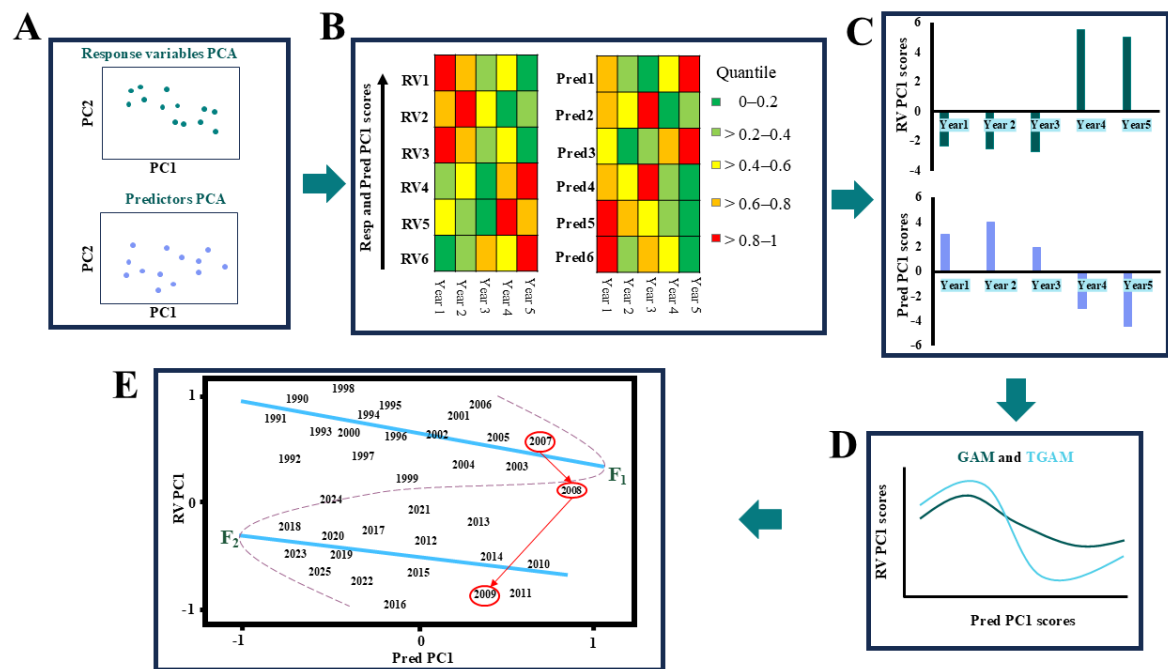


Figure 8

